

events for those who are acquainted with "The Religion of Zarathustra," written by one of our countrymen as one of the series of "the principal religions."* There is an unmistakable affinity between Ahura-Mazda, the chief god of the Persians, and Jahveh. The spirits who surround the throne of the former correspond with the heavenly hosts at whose head Jahveh stands. Both religions show a strictly moral character. In both it is considered unlawful to make an image of the deity. Cleanness is prized by the worshippers of Ahura-Mazda as highly as by the servant of Jahveh; the purifications of both agree down to details.† Even in their ideas of the origin of the human race we notice similarities, which, most probably, must be explained by the adoption by the Israelites of an eastern-asiatic myth in a modified form.‡ We have already said enough to show that points of contact between the Persian and the Israelitish ideas and usages were indeed not wanting.

There is nothing strange, therefore, in the supposition that the intercourse between the Jews and Persians resulted in the modification or the enrichment of the religions of both or of one of the two nations. It may be said to be especially credible that the Jewish race, which was so much the less powerful and numerous, took this and that idea or ceremony from its rulers. If we also take into consideration, that the contact with the Persians coincides chronologically with important alterations in the religion of Israel, nay, that Ezra, from whom the reformation proceeded, was brought up in Babylonia—then we even think it no longer inexplicable that some have derived the whole of the later development of Judaism from Parseeism. "Not inexplicable," however, only in the sense that such a derivation has appearances in its favour. It cannot stand the test of a close examination. On

* C. P. Tiele, *de godsdienst van Zarathustra van haar ontstaan in Baktrië tot den val van het oud-Perzische rijk* (1864).

† Comp. Tiele, l. c., pp. 227, seq., 233, seq., 281, seq.

‡ Comp. Vol. I. 254, sq., 389, sq.; Dillmann in Schenkel's *Bibel-Lexikon*, ii. 49, sq.

the standpoint which we now occupy, we may even consider ourselves absolved from such an examination. All the foregoing has brought to light clearly enough the independence of Israel's religion in general and of the later Judaic development in particular. The birth and earliest history of Judaism have been explained in this and the previous chapter quite naturally, without any necessity for calling in the influence of Parseeism to our aid. Moreover, those who, on the ground of the resemblance between the two religions, make the one dependent on the other, must not shut their eyes to the no less great, nay, material difference—which is surely palpable enough. We will not dwell any longer, therefore, upon this opinion, which, besides, is now altogether obsolete.

It is quite otherwise with regard to a remark made by the author of "The Religion of Zarathustra," to whom we have just referred. He draws attention to the great affinity between the organization of the Jewish synagogue and the Persian worship. "The sacrifices and other sacred ceremonies of the Parsees were not tied down to a fixed religious centre; they were performed in all places, on every holy hill. Ezra did not follow this example and respected the ancient Israelitish tradition, only permitting the sacrificial service in the temple at Jerusalem. Places of worship, however, in which the faithful offered up prayer in common, sang religious songs and read the books of the law or the prophets, he established all over the land; and it would seem that this salutary reformation was an imitation of the custom of the Parsees to read the sacred books before the Mazdayacnians, to repeat the ancient prayers before them, and to sing the holy songs before them or with them, at stated times."* One might assent to this entirely, without thereby detracting in any way from the independence of Judaism. But that assent can only be given with some limitation. We found, namely, that the synagogue cannot be regarded as a foreign plant; it was born on foreign

* Tiele, l. c., p. 283.

soil, it is true, but yet of Israelitism itself.* Thus the most that can be assumed is, that the Parsee worship hastened the development of the seed which already existed, or, in other words, that Ezra and the Sopherîm were the more ready to transplant the synagogue to the soil of Judæa, because such a worship as was practised there was also in use among the Persians, and was evidently a powerful means of cultivating religious feeling among the people. Interpreted in this way, the influence of Parseeism can be recognized, not only in the organization of the synagogue, but also in the whole priestly legislation, in the redaction of which Ezra, as our previous investigations show, took an active part. The precepts concerning *clean* and *unclean*, which occupy so large a space in it,† are of Israelitish origin.‡ But intercourse with a people such as the Persians, who possessed similar regulations and made their faithful observance a point of honour, may have contributed to cause the priestly traditions to be carefully written down, and, after they were committed to writing, to make them find acceptance with the Jewish nation.

Be this as it may, it can in no case surprise us that here and there elements of Parseeism were adopted by the Jews, or at all events by their spiritual leaders. There was no actual introduction of Parsee ideas or ceremonies. But more than one originally Parsee notion was first embraced by a few, then applauded by many, to be gradually naturalized at last in Judaism. If we examine more closely under what circumstances and how this occurred, we find that during and after the exile wants arose in Israel which Parseeism met, as it were. The Jewish religion develops itself independently and on its own ground in a certain direction. In consequence of this, voids make themselves felt in the traditional ideas. Where this is found to be the case, but only there, what is wanting in Judaism, and yet seems as if it ought not to be wanting, is borrowed from Parseeism. If I be not mistaken, the exami-

* Above, pp. 17, sq. † Vol. II. pp. 259, sq. ‡ Vol. II. pp. 31, sq., 94-96.

nation of the facts themselves will show that the influence of Zarathustra's followers remained confined within these limits. Only one exception must be made here, and that with respect to the Purîm-feast: it is very probable that it was borrowed from the Persians, but it cannot be demonstrated that its introduction satisfied a want which arose among the Jews themselves as a fruit of their own religious life. But other circumstances are involved here, as will appear in Chapter X, when we return to this subject. We will pass over the Purîm-feast for the present and confine ourselves to the remaining facts. To make our review of them as complete as possible, and not to disperse unnecessarily things which are closely connected, I will fix my attention not only upon the period of which we are now treating, but also upon the preceding and following centuries.

Perhaps even in Ezekiel, but certainly in Zechariah the son of Iddo, the contemporary of Zerubbabel and Joshua, we discover traces of the influence of the Persians, and this in *the doctrine of angels*. The belief in the existence and the activity of higher beings who are servants of Jahveh and carry out his will, is old-Israelitish.* In proportion as men conceived the distance between Jahveh and creation to be greater, or, to put it in another way, as the conception of Jahveh became more transcendent, the angels' office necessarily increased in scope and importance. Now the conception of Jahveh did indeed develop itself in that direction, from the beginning of the Babylonish exile.† We cannot wonder, therefore, that angels play so important a part even in Ezekiel and still more in Zechariah, and particularly appear as messengers between Jahveh and his envoy,‡ which does not occur at all in the older prophets. But at the same time it is probable that in this Zechariah at least imitated the Persians, with whom the heavenly

* Vol. I. p. 42. In the older historical narratives too, and above all in *Genesis*, angels occur repeatedly, and especially "the angel of Jahveh," who appears as his representative and speaks as though he were Jahveh himself.

† Comp. Vol. II. pp. 111, sq., 127-129. ‡ Comp. Vol. II. pp. 111, 211, sq.

spirits usually carry out Ahura-Mazda's commands. In one respect, at all events, the prophet is decidedly dependent upon Parseeism. When he speaks, namely, of *seven* eyes engraved upon a stone which Jahveh lays before the high-priest;* or of the *seven* arms of the golden candlestick;† or once even—according to a very probable correction of the text—of “*the seven watchers* of Jahveh, which run to and fro through the whole earth”‡—we naturally connect this with the *amešas-penta's* (“non-slumberers”?) who surround Ahura-Mazda and are described as leaders of the heavenly host.§

The doctrine of angels continued to develop among the Jews in the same direction. In the 3rd century before our era we already find traces of belief in guardian angels of single nations.|| A century later the author of the book of Daniel uses the same idea.¶ He, too, is the first who mentions the names of angels,** which proves that men began to think of them more and more in the likeness of man and ascribed to them a personal character, an individuality of their own. The same author uses, to indicate a certain class of heavenly spirits, the word “*watchers*,”†† which we just now believed we had found in Zechariah and which also occurs elsewhere.‡‡ Heaven gradually becomes more thickly populated with a number of higher beings, differing in their rank and the sphere of their activity, charged with a definite task and known by proper names. In some of these it is believed that we have Persian names of angels, translated or adopted with a slight modification.§§ But irrespectively of this, the influence of Parseeism in this increasing abundance of heavenly spirits is unmistakable.

* Zech. iii. 9.

† Zech. iv. 2.

‡ Zech. iv. 10. Usual reading, “the seven eyes of Jahveh, &c.” The correction is put forward by Dr. A. Kohut, *über die jüdische Angelologie u. Daemonologie in ihrer Abhängigkeit vom Parsismus*, p. 6, n. 17.

§ Tiele, l. c., pp. 142, seq.

|| Comp. Deut. xxxii. 8 (lxx.); Sirach xvii. 17.

¶ Dan. x. 12, 20, 21; xi. 1; xii. 1.

** Dan. viii. 16; ix. 21 (Gabriel); x. 13, 21; xii. 1 (Michael).

†† Dan. iv. 13, seq.

‡‡ The book of Enoch, chap. xx. seq.

§§ Comp. Kohut, l. c., p. 24, sqq.

Perhaps this is shown even more plainly in the Jewish belief in *wicked spirits*, and in the pre-eminently Wicked One, Satan. We ought, however, to make a distinction here. *Satan* is a Hebrew word which means "opposer," "accuser." Before the exile the poetical idea had already arisen in Israel, that in the council of heaven, among "the sons of God"* who surrounded Jahveh's throne, there was a "Satan," who had taken upon himself the task of pleading the unfavourable interpretation of man's character, and therefore could be charged by Jahveh with the allotment of misfortunes to mankind. This is the part which Satan plays, as we know, in the introduction to the book of Job.† Here he is still a servant of Jahveh, just as much as the other angels, and undertakes to carry out Jahveh's will. But the task which is given him is in accord with his nature, as expressed in the name which he bears. In the vision of Micaiah ben Imlah‡ all angels may equally aspire to carry out Jahveh's decision respecting Ahab's fall, and, in reply to a question addressed to all, "the spirit" (of prophecy) volunteers to perform the task; the poet of the Jobeid knows one among those heavenly beings who is marked out, as it were, for such punishments.—If we now open the prophecies of Zechariah, we find Satan still drawn there almost as he is drawn in the book of Job. He stands opposite Jahveh's throne, on the right hand of the high-priest Joshua, to accuse the latter.§ There is this amount of difference, that in this prophet Satan receives a rebuke on account of his attack on Joshua and on Jerusalem, so that he is already beginning to oppose Jahveh more than in the book of Job.|| It would be hazardous to see the influence of the Persian notion of Anro-mainyus¶ in this small modification, were it not that the Jewish Satan subsequently acquired the traits of this spirit of darkness more and more: now there is nothing strange in the idea that the

* Ps. xxix. 1; lxxxix. 7; Gen. vi. 2, sqq.

† Job i. ii.

‡ 1 Kings xxii. 19-23.

§ Zech. iii. 1.

|| Verse 2.

¶ Comp. concerning him Tiele, l. c., pp. 186, seq.

relative resemblance between the two figures was very soon noticed, and led to a somewhat modified conception of Satan. The latter has become exactly like Anro-mainyus in the Chronicler (third century, B.C.), who renders the older account, that *Jahveh* incited David to number the people,* in these words: "And *Satan* stood up against Israel and provoked David to number Israel."† This shows that the conception of the moral world had undergone an important change. The older Israelitish prophets and prophetic historians had not hesitated to derive even evil, moral evil not excepted, from *Jahveh*:‡ the belief that *Jahveh* directed all things was so strong in them, that they did not recoil from this consequence. Even the second *Isaiah*—perhaps with an eye to, but yet at variance with, the Persian dualism with which he was acquainted—had put these words into *Jahveh*'s mouth:

"I form the light and create darkness,
I make peace and create evil,
I, *Jahveh*, do all these things."§

But it is not unnatural that objections to this conception should have arisen in the minds of some: *Jahveh*'s moral purity seemed to them to be not uninjured by being thus made the immediate cause of sin. The remedy was at hand. Anro-mainyus was not unknown to the Jews and—*Satan* stood ready as it were to undertake his part.

When the first step upon this road had once been taken, men gradually went further. In the book of *Tobit*—an ethic romance, perhaps from the first century before our era, to which we shall revert hereafter—another wicked spirit, *Aehsma-daeva*, called here *Asmodeus*, is introduced as taking an active part.|| About the same time we find a number of wicked spirits mentioned in the revelation of *Enoch*, and among them, it would seem, some of Parsee origin.¶ We know from the New Testament how wide an influence the popular belief of the Jews ascribed to "demons."

* 2 Sam. xxiv. 1.

† 1 Chron. xxi. 1.

‡ Comp. Vol. I. p. 48.

§ Isa. xlv. 7.

|| Chap. iii. 8; vi. 15, seq.

¶ Kap. 6, seq. (ed. Dillmann).

In the Talmud also and in other Jewish writings various wicked spirits occur, which have not incorrectly been identified with Parsee daeva's.* Thus it is most clearly evident that on this point especially Judaism proved very susceptible to foreign notions. It is true, that at all events in theory and in the minds of really pious men monotheism remained inviolate; God's direction of all things was not limited by the operations of the wicked spirits; therefore they were always subject to him. But by the introduction of these foreign elements the religious consciousness itself was considerably altered. In no other particular was it so deeply affected by foreign influence as in this one.

This last remark would be exaggerated and incorrect, had the Jews also taken their belief in personal immortality from the Persians. But this was not the case, however much Parseeism had to do with the formation and development of that belief. Let us begin by reviewing the facts. The book of Daniel was written before the middle of the 2nd century B.C. We find in it the expectation that "many of them that sleep in the dust of the earth shall awake, some to everlasting life and some to shame, to everlasting terror."† It is certainly not probable that the writer stood alone in this expectation, nor that it arose precisely in his days. We are not surprised, therefore, to meet in a writing of somewhat older date with allusions to belief in immortality, from which we may infer that it was embraced in the 3rd century B.C., at least by some.‡ Now we can account for this fact without having recourse to Persian influence. Jahveh's supremacy was acknowledged in Israel without limitation even before the exile; his dominion extended over the dead as well. "See now"—says Jahveh in "the Song of Moses," a production of the Assyrian period,—

"See now that I, even I, am he,
And there is no god beside me.

* Comp. Kohut, l. c., pp. 48, sqq.

† Dan. xii. 2.

‡ Eccles. iii. 21, in connection with chap. vi. 6; ix. 2, 5, 6, 10; xi. 8; comp. *Hk. O.* iii, 191, and below, Chapter X.

I kill and I make alive,
 When I have wounded, I heal,
 And there is no one that can deliver out of my hand.”*

The same thoughts are also expressed elsewhere.† Men were even able to relate that Elijah and Elisha, the envoys of Jahveh, had raised the dead.‡ The expectation that a resurrection would follow death, could easily attach itself to such a belief in Jahveh’s unlimited power. Now after the Babylonish exile, as we have already seen,§ there came over the religious consciousness of the Israelite this great change, that he began to conceive his relation to Jahveh as something individual, as a personal matter, much more than formerly. So the hope—and, since Jahveh did not lack the power, the trust—in the immortality of the individual naturally superseded the belief in *Israel’s* perpetual existence. The one results so regularly and naturally from the other, that the thought of foreign influence does not occur to us at all. The same is true, to a certain degree, of the form which the belief in immortality assumed, the resurrection of the dead. The first who mentions it is Ezekiel: in an ecstasy he beholds a valley full of men’s bones, which afterwards become clothed with flesh and animated by Jahveh’s spirit.|| According to the prophet’s own explanation, this is purely symbolic: the revival of the dead bones is the type of the restoration of the dead Israelitish nation.¶ But it is a symbol which could easily be interpreted literally, because the Israelite’s ideas of the human body and soul and their mutual relation hardly admitted any other notion of man’s existence after death than that of resuscitation, *i.e.*, of the miraculous restoration of the body, into which the spirit returned. It is Jahveh who gives man—or, more generally, man and beast—*spirit*, *i.e.*, life, the breath of life;** he is “the god of the spirits of all flesh.”††

* Deut. xxxii. 39.

† 1 Kings xvii. 22; 2 Kings vi. 35; xiii. 21.

‡ Ezek. xxxvii. 1, seq.

** Gen. ii. 7; Eccles. xii. 7.

† 1 Sam. ii. 6.

§ pp. 29, sq.

¶ Verses 11-14.

†† Num. xvi. 22; xxvii. 16.

As soon as Jahveh takes back the breath of life, man and beast die;* or, as it is expressed elsewhere, "the spirit returns to God who gave it."† But that spirit does not live on, at all events not independently or individually; if anything remains of a man after his death, it is his shade, which goes down into Sheol,‡ but cannot be held to *live* there, in the true sense of the word.§ The "spirit" must therefore be breathed into that shade—or into the body of which it is the shadow—by Jahveh afresh, if the person is to begin a new life in his entirety. Of itself now it would be far from strange, if the Jews had been led by their own reflections to the notion of such an awakening, not exactly of all the dead without distinction, but of departed Israelites. Let it be taken into consideration, however, that the hope of a resurrection from the dead also existed among the Persians, and is held with high probability to be an original element of Zarathustra's doctrine.|| Let it also be remembered that it is found in the book of Daniel, side by side with a partition of history into four periods, followed by the Messianic age, which displays great resemblance to the idea which the Persians formed of the course of the development of the world.¶ Does it not become extremely probable, therefore, that Parseeism was not entirely foreign to the rise and the first growth of the Jewish dogma? Must we not also assume here, that the germs which lay hidden in Judaism were fertilized by contact with a religion in which they had arrived at maturity?

If I have succeeded in sketching the line of thought which ended in the enrichment of Judaism with the ideas of which we have here treated, the reader will no longer wonder at the admission of these foreign elements; he will rather think it natural that the Jewish religion proved susceptible to the

* Ps. civ. 29.

† Eccles. xii. 7.

‡ Consider such passages as Gen. xxxvii. 35; 1 Sam. xxviii. 19; 2 Sam. xii. 23.

§ Comp. Vol. I. pp. 64, sq.

|| Comp. Tiele, l. c., pp. 250, seq., and especially p. 256.

¶ See on this subject Chapter X.

influence of Parseeism precisely at these points. Yet he will not on this account imagine that these newer ideas found equal favour with all, or that there was no opposition to them. Every departure from existing things excites contradiction, and particularly when it takes the shape of imitating the foreigner and can therefore be resisted as anti-national. If it be a question of the introduction of novelties into religion, such a resistance usually shows itself with special force. Thus we can but expect that the conservative spirit will not fail to declare itself among the Jews. But at the same time we are prepared to find that the Scribes—in whom we have surely noticed life and movement—will not pay that spirit unqualified homage. The Greek period, which now opens before us, will fully confirm this conception of the course of further development.

NOTES.

I.—*See pp. 7, n. †; 8, n. *.*

The subject which is merely touched upon in the pages referred to above, is very intricate, and will undoubtedly long occupy the attention of critics, nay, will perhaps never be settled in a thoroughly satisfactory manner. The researches made of late years have clearly proved that formerly the problem had been laid down too simply; thus they have brought us further on the road, it is true, but at the same time have, at any rate apparently, placed the solution further off. That which formerly passed almost as an axiom: the preservation inviolate and the handing down of the text, both of the Old Testament in its entirety and of the Thorah in particular, can now no longer be allowed. It ought rather to be admitted—especially with Geiger and Popper—that even after the (provisional) completion of the books of the Old Testament, greater and lesser modifications, interpolations, &c. have been made in